"KNOW YOUR WORTH"

-Don't settle for anything less -

The Enthusiasts had Graced a Magnum Opus

on

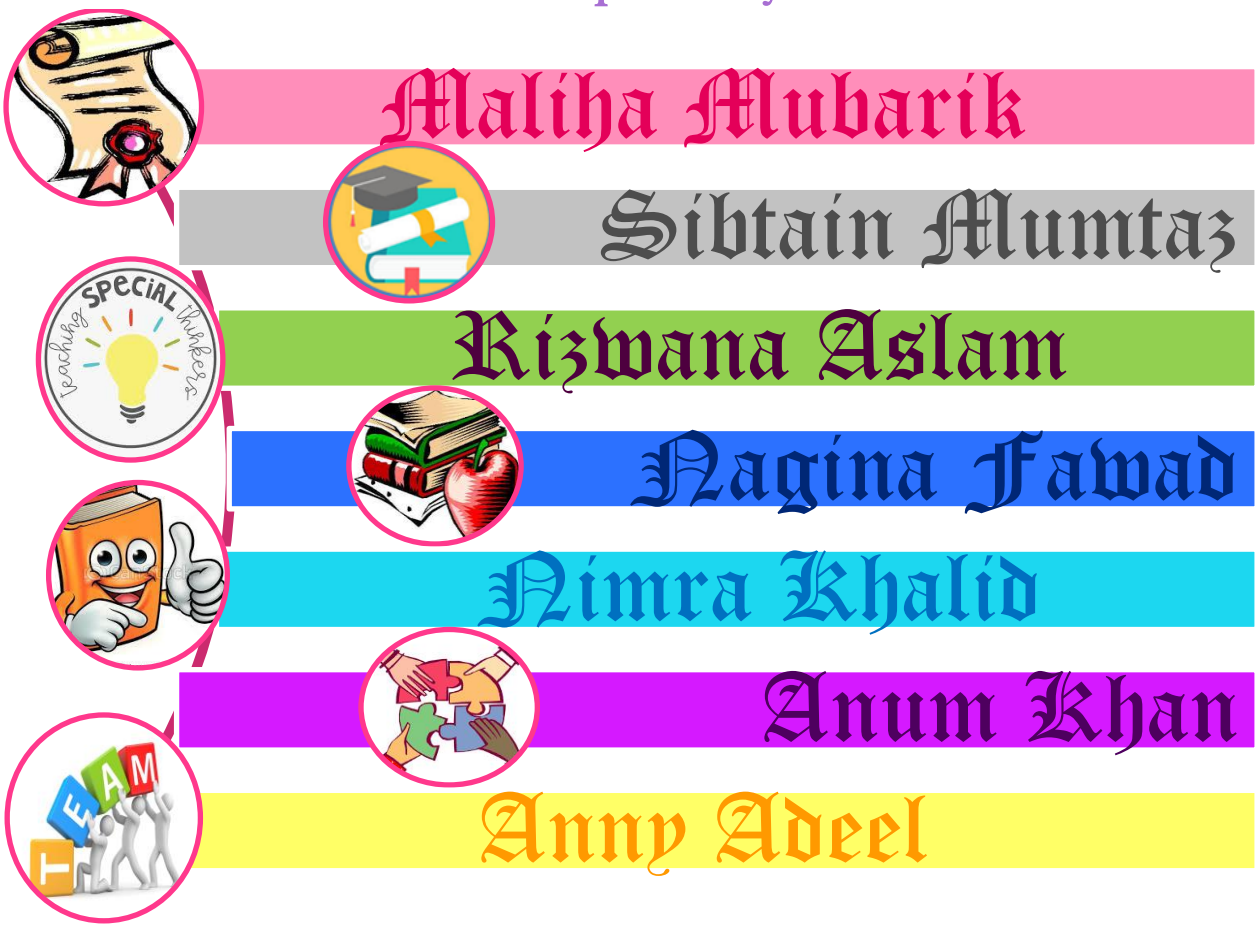
"Bilingualism 512"

for

Grand Quiz 2020

Special thanks to our mentor "Maha Malik"

Composed by



Lesson-08

- Quantitative analyses of the existing data often show that differences between a bilingual speaker's brain and a monolingual's brain are the exceptions rather than the rule.
- Bilinguals do not seem to vary from monolinguals in neurological processes.
- The lateralization of language in the brains of the two groups of speakers is also similar.
- A related issue concerns the mental representation of a bilingual's two languages and the processing emanating from such representation.
- Evidence exists for both separate storage and shared storage of the two languages in the bilingual's brain.
- Bilinguals have a language store for each of their two languages and a more general conceptual store.
- There are strong, direct interconnecting channels between each of these three separate stores.
- The interconnections between the two languages comprise association and translation systems, and common images in the conceptual store act as mediators.
- Speakers of different proficiency levels or at different acquisitional stages vary in strength and directness of the interconnections between the separate stores in language processing;
- Highly proficient speakers in two languages may go directly from a concept to the target language.
- Those speakers whose second language is weaker than their first tend to use the first language to mediate.
- Bilingualism refers to someone who can function in both languages in conversational interaction.
- Bilingual speakers choose to use their different languages depending on a variety of factors, including the type of person addressed and different situations and contexts.
- There is a widespread impression that bilingual speakers code-switch because they cannot express themselves adequately in one language.
- Code-switching is an extremely common practice among bilinguals and takes many forms.
- Code-switching involves skilled manipulation of overlapping sections of two (or more) grammars.

- Code-switching is a discrete mode of speaking, emanating from a single code-switching grammar.

- Code-switching grammar is concerned that the two languages involved do not play the same role in sentence making.

- Code-switching; is not a simple combination of two sets of grammatical rules but grammatical integration of one language in another.

- One consequence of the 'two-in-one' perspective is that bilingual speakers are often compared to monolinguals in terms of their language proficiency.

- Psycholinguistic studies, tests are given without taking into account that bilingual speakers may have learnt their two languages under different conditions for different purposes, and they only use them in different situations.

- Bilingual speakers have a unique linguistic and psychological profile; their two languages are constantly in different states of activation; they are able to call upon their linguistic knowledge and resources according to the context and adapt their behaviour.

- Interpreters and translators, switch between languages as a routine part of their job.

- Professional interpreters and translators as special people with highly developed language skills in each of their languages. They are trained to translate from the **'passive' to the 'active'** language. They are also trained to think rapidly of **appropriate wording of ideas** and produce words from a restricted area of meaning.

- Another group of bilinguals engage themselves in cross-modality language production. This is the case with speech-sign bilinguals who, in addition to the oral modality, use the manual-visual modality in everyday communication.

- The early nineteenth century was a time of a widespread belief that bilingualism has a detrimental effect on a human being's **intellectual and spiritual growth.**

- A bilingual who could not acquire full competence in any of the languages were termed as 'semilinguals'.

- linguistic deficits in six areas of language (Hansegard, 1975; Skutnabb-Kangas, 1981):

1. Size of vocabulary
2. Correctness of language
3. Unconscious processing of language
4. Language creation
5. Mastery of the functions of language

6. Meanings and imagery

- It is significant that the term 'semilingualism' emerged in connection with the study of language skills of people belonging to ethnic minority groups.

- Research which provided evidence in support of the notion of 'semilingualism' was conducted in Scandinavia and North America

- **Misguided conceptions**

• First language may be specific to a context; a person may be competent in some contexts but not in others.
• Second, bilingual children are still in the process of developing their languages. It is unfair to compare them to some idealized adults.
• Third, the comparison with monolinguals is also unfair.
• Fourth, if languages are relatively underdeveloped, the origins may not be in bilingualism per se, but in the economic, political and social conditions that evoke under-development.

- Switching and mixing of languages is stigmatized as an illegitimate mode of communication, even sometimes by the bilingual speakers themselves.

- Attitudes do not, remain constant over time. At a personal level, changes in attitudes may occur when there is some personal reward involved.

- Speakers of minority languages will be more motivated to maintain and use their languages if they prove to be useful in increasing their employability or social mobility.

- At the societal level, attitudes towards bilingualism change when the political ideology changes.

- In the US, questions about language rights are widely discussed, not only in college classrooms and language communities but also in government and federal legislatures.

- The kind of rights, apart from language rights, that minority groups may claim include: protection, membership of their ethnic group and separate existence, non-discrimination and equal treatment, education and information in their ethnic language, freedom to worship, freedom of belief, freedom of movement, employment, peaceful assembly and association, political representation and involvement, and administrative autonomy.

Lesson 9

- **1. Relationships with parents and extended family:** Being a bilingual allows someone to bridge the generations.

- **2. Community relationships:** Bilingual has a chance to communicate with a wider variety of people than a monolingual.

- **3. Transnational communication**: One barrier between nations and ethnic groups tends to be language and bilinguals can bridge that.
- **4.Language sensitivity:** Being able to move between two languages may lead to more sensitivity in communication

- **Cultural Advantages**.

  - Bilingualism provides the opportunity to experience two or more cultures.
  - can travel to neighboring countries and experience other cultures as a passive on looker.

- **Economic Advantages**

- may have a wider portfolio of jobs available.
- partnerships across nations become more widespread

- **Cognitive Advantages**

- may have some advantages in thinking
- greater sensitivity in communication.

Often misled accusations:

- Individual level
- Social level

Individual disadvantages:

- Language problems-families have to work more
- Stigmatization has to be addressed-frustration
- Identity issues
- Identification with whom?
- Influence bilingualism state
- Identities evolving and fractured

Social disadvantages:

- Accused of social unrest
- Focus less on unit and more uniformity
- Threat felt by states
- Communication and efficiency

Lesson-10

- To get an accurate description of the degree of bilingualism, different types and models of language tests have now been developed.
- The degree of proficiency in each language depends on its function.
- These functions may be external or internal.

- The external functions of bilingualism are determined by the number of areas of contact and by the variation of each in duration, frequency, and pressure.
- The amount of influence of any area of contact on the bilingualism of the individual depends on the duration of the contact.
- The duration of contact is not significant, however, unless we know its frequency.
- In each of the areas of contact, there may be a number of pressures which influence the bilinguals in the use of one language rather than the other.
- These may be economic, administrative, cultural, political, military, historical, religious, or demographic.
- For speakers of a minority language in an ethnic community, the knowledge of the majority language may be an economic necessity.
- Administrative workers in some areas are required to master a second language.
- In foreign country for any educated person to be fluent in one or more foreign languages.
- The use of certain languages may be maintained by the pressure of political circumstances.
- A bilingual who enters the armed forces of his country may be placed in situations which require him to hear or speak his second language more often than he otherwise would.
- The languages a bilingual learns and the extent to which he must learn them may have been determined by past historical events.
- A bilingual may become fluent in a language for purely religious reasons.
- The number of persons with whom the bilingual has the likelihood of coming into contact.

Lesson 11

☆ Group membership: This factor must be viewed not only in a purportedly objective sense, i.e., in terms of physiological, sociological criteria (e.g., age, sex, race, religion, etc.)

☆The possible co-occurrence of so many variables must also make it exceedingly difficult to use the concept "situation," for analytic purposes.

☆The concept of reference group membership enables us to recognize some invariables of habitual language choice in stable multilingual setting

☆Each of these aspects of "situation" may shed light on certain regularities in language choice on particular social occasions.

☆Situational styles pertain to considerations of intimacy-distance, formality-informality, solidarity—non-solidarity, status (or power) equality-inequality.

☆Neither reference group membership nor situational style, alone or in concert, fully explain(s) the variations that can be noted in habitual language choice in multilingual settings or the organization of any particular multilingual setting.

☆Topic succeeds in bringing another language to the fore.

☆Topics tell us little about either the process or the structure of social behaviour.

☆Topics usually exhibit patterns which follow those of the major spheres of activity in the society under consideration.

Lesson 12

☆Nine domains recommended by Schmidt-Rohr

☆ Subsequently, other investigators either added or found that fewer domains were sufficient in particular multilingual settings.

☆it also recognizes that their language behaviour may be more than merely a matter of individual preference or facility but also a matter of role-relation.

☆The very existence of certain reference groups seems to depend largely on location, setting or other environmental factors rather than on group consciousness or group-experience as such.

☆Situational styles pertain to considerations of intimacy-distance, formality-informality, solidarity—non-solidarity, status (or power) equality-inequality, etc.

☆The implication of topical regulation of language choice is that certain topics are somehow handled better in one language than in another in particular multilingual contexts.

☆ It also seems unnecessarily difficult to analyse language choice within large, complex, literate societies in terms of the enormous repertoire of shifting reference groups which these provide

☆ they usually exhibit patterns which follow those of the major spheres of activity in the society under consideration.

☆Language choices, cumulated over many individuals and many choice instances, become transformed into the processes of language maintenance or language shift.

☆ The domains of language behaviour may differ from setting to setting.

☆The inter-relationship between domains of language behaviour define data societal- institutional level.

☆A domain is a socio-cultural construct abstracted from topics of communication, relationships between communicators, and locales of communication

☆the "governmental administration" domain is a social nexus which brings people together primarily for a certain cluster of purposes

☆ H e n c e a domain is a higher order of abstraction or summarization which is arrived at from a consideration of the socio-cultural patterning which surrounds language choices.

☆Many investigators, have also differentiated within the family domain in terms of "speakers."

☆Two different approaches have been followed in connection with such differentiation. Braunshausen and also Mackey (1962) have merely specified family "members": father, mother, child, domestic, governess and tutor, etc.

☆Gross(1951), on the other hand, has specified dyads within the family: grandfather to grandmother, grandmother to grandfather, grand-father to father, grandmother to father, grand-father to mother, grand-mother to mother, grandfather to child, grandmother to child, father to mother, mother to father, etc.

☆ If many individuals (or sub-groups) tend to handle topic x in language X, this may well be because this topic pertains to a domain in which that language is "dominant" for their society or for their sub-group as a whole.

☆Of the many factors contributing to and subsumed under the domain concept some are more important and more accessible to careful measurement than others.

☆Role-relations may be of value to us in accounting for the fact that our two hypothetical governmental functionaries, who usually speak an informal variant of language to each other at the office

☆It would not be surprising to discover that his role is different, that he is the supervisor of the other for example.

☆In many studies of multilingual behavior, the family domain has proved to be a very crucial one.

☆By recognizing the existence of domains, it becomes possible to contrast the language of topics for individuals or particular sub-populations with the language of domains for larger parts, if not the whole of the population.

Lesson-13

- Variance in language behaviour in multilingual settings is likely to be **exceedingly complex**.
- **sources of variance**:
- **1. Media variance**: **writing, reading and speaking**: Degree of mother tongue maintenance or displacement may be quite different in each of these very different media.
- Where literacy has been attained **prior** to interaction with an "other tongue" reading and writing use of the mother tongue may resist displacement longer than speaking usage.
- 2**. Role variance**: Degree of maintenance or shift may be quite different in conjunction with **inner** speech (the language of thought, of talking to one's self,), comprehension (decoding, for self), and production (encoding, for others).
- There is some evidence that language shift is most resistant to inner speech.
- 3. **Situational variance**: Degree of maintenance or shift may be quite different in conjunction with more formal, less formal and intimate communication (**Fishman, 1965a**).
- Language shift is resisted more in intimate situations.
- **4. Domain variance**: Degree of maintenance or shift may be quite different in each of several distinguishable domains of language behaviour.
- Dominance Configuration: A description and analysis of the simultaneous, cumulative effect of all of the above-mentioned sources of variance in language choice provides a dominance configuration (**Weinrich**, 1953).
- **Dominance configurations** summarize data on the language choice behaviour.
- Repeated dominance configurations for the same population, studied over time, may be used to represent evidence of language maintenance or shift in a particular multilingual setting.
- Although the dominance configurations till requires much further refinement, it seems to merit the time and effort that such refinement might necessitate.
- Contributions The domain concept has helped organize and clarify the previously unstructured awareness that language maintenance and language shift proceed quite unevenly across the several sources and domains.
- It has shown that languages in certain domains appear to be more resistant to displacement than others (e.g., the family domain in comparison to the occupational domain) across all multilingual settings characterized by urbanization.
- The simultaneous, concomitant effect of certain domains and other sources of variance and strict domain separation can also be studied in relation to their impact on language use.
- The domain concept has also helped refine the distinction between **coordinate bilingualism and compound bilingualism** by stressing that not only does a continuum (rather than a dichotomy) occurs but by indicating how one stage along this continuum may shade in to another.
- The domain concept may help place the compound-coordinate distinction in greater socio-cultural perspective, in much the same way as it may serve the entire area of language choice.
- When systematically interrelated with other sources of variance in language behaviour (media variance, role variance, situational variance)
- when based upon underlying analyses of the role-relations and topics most crucial to them, domains of language behaviour may contribute importantly to the establishment of dominance configuration summaries.

- **Challenges of Domain Analysis**: There are several methodological problems of data collection and data analysis.
- The substantive challenges pertaining to domain analysis are varied, as they will depend on the interests of particular investigators.

Lesson-14

- In regular face-to-face interaction, the structure of that repertoire can be related to the verbal behaviour of members of the community in particular situations.
- In **Norway**, local independence and distinctness of folk culture are highly valued, the dialect enjoys great prestige.
- A person's native speech is regarded as an integral part of his family background, a sign of his local identity.
- By identifying himself as a dialect speaker both at home and abroad, a member symbolizes pride in his community and in the distinctness of its contribution to society at large.
- Formal education, however, is always carried on in the standard language, the language of official transactions, religion, and the mass media.
- Norwegian law sanctions two standard languages.
- In everyday interaction, a specific community may select among the two as the situation demands.
- Members view this alternation as a shift between two distinct entities, which are never mixed.
- A person speaks either one or the other. The meaning attached to local descent and dialect use—being part of the "local team"—is clearly seen when we consider those members of the community who dissociate themselves from this "team."
- Traditionally, in northern Norway the local community of equals was separated from the landowning commercial and administrative elite by a wide gulf of social and judicial inequality.
- Since the latter were the introducers and users of standard Norwegian, the standard form was—and to some extent still is—associated with this inequality of status.
- Many of the functions of the former elite have now been incorporated into the local social system.
- Individuals who fill these functions, however, continue to be largely of nonlocal descent.
- Although they may pay lip service to locally accepted rules of etiquette and use the dialect on occasion.
- Since the different social meanings which attach to the dialect are regular and persistent, they must in some way be reinforced by the pattern of social ties.
- There is by no means a simple one-to-one relationship between specific speech varieties and specific social identities.
- Recent linguistic writings have devoted considerable attention to speech events as the starting point for the analysis of verbal communication.
- It has been shown that aside from purely linguistic and stylistic rules, the form of a verbal message in any speech event is directly affected by:
- 1. The participants, i.e. speakers, addressees, and audiences; 2. The ecological surroundings; and 3. The topic or range of topics (Hymes, 1964; Ervin-Tripp, 1964).

- Verbal communication may be seen as a two-step process. Step 1: Speakers take in clues from the outside and translate them into appropriate behavioural strategies. This step parallels the perceptual process by which referential meanings are converted into sentences.
- Step 2: These behavioural strategies are in turn translated into appropriate verbal symbols.
- **Setting** is used to indicate the way in which natives classify their **ecological** environment into distinct locales.
- This enables us to relate the opportunities for action to constraints upon action provided by the socially significant features of the environment.
- The socio-ecological restrictions on personnel and activities still allow for a wide range of socially distinct happenings, for example school is used for class, all denoting a framework of specific status sets, i.e. systems of complementary distributions of rights and duties.
- Alternative social definitions of the situation may occur within the same setting, depending on the opportunities and constraints on interaction offered by a shift in personnel and/or object of the interaction.
- Such definitions always manifest themselves in what we would prefer to call a social event.
- Events center around one or at the most a limited range of topics and are distinguishable because of their sequential structure.
- They are marked by stereotyped and thus recognizable opening and closing routines.
- The distinction between situation and event can be clarified if we consider the behaviour of Hemnes residents who are sometimes seen in the community office
- First transacting their business in an officially correct manner, and then turning to one of the clerks and asking him to step aside for a private chat.
- The norms which apply to the two kinds of interaction differ; the break between the two is clearly marked.
- Therefore, they constitute two distinct social events, although the personnel and the locale remain the same.
- The terms setting, social situation, and social event as used here can be considered three successively more complex stages in the speaker's processing of contextual information.
- Each stage subsumes the previous one in such a way that the preceding one is part of the input affecting the selection rules of the next stage.
- Thus, a speaker cannot identify the social situation without having made some decision as to the nature of the setting.
- **Situational Switching** When within the same setting the participants' definition of the social event changes, this change may be signaled among others by linguistic clues.
- The notion of situational switching assumes a direct relationship between language and the social situation.
- The linguistic forms employed are critical features of the event in the sense that any violation of selection rules changes members' perception of the event.
- Situations also differ in the amount of freedom of choice allowed to speakers.
- Some like greetings, petitions, and similar routines described by Albert (1972) similarly seem strictly determined.
- **Metaphorical Switching** In contrast with those instances where choice of variables is narrowly constrained by social norms, there are others in which participants are given considerably more latitude.

- Thus, official community affairs are largely defined as nonlocal and hence the standard is appropriate.
- But since many individuals who carry out the relevant activities all know each other as fellow locals, they often interject casual statements in the dialect into their formal discussions.
- The language switch here relates to particular kinds of topics or subject matter rather than to change in social situation.
- We will use the term metaphorical switching for this phenomenon.
- In **interactional sociolinguistics**, therefore, we can no longer base our analyses on the assumption that language and society constitute different kinds of reality, subject to correlational studies.
- Social and linguistic information are comparable only when studied within the same general analytical framework.
- Moving from statements of social constraints to grammatical rules thus represents a transformation from one level of abstraction to another within a single communicative system.
- **As Bernstein (1961**) has pointed out, verbal communication is a process in which actors select from a limited range of alternates within a repertoire of speech forms determined by previous learning.
- Although ultimately this selection is a matter of individual choice, the rules of codification by which the deep structure of interpersonal relations is transformed into speech performances are independent of expressed attitudes and similar in nature to the grammatical rules operating on the level of intelligibility.
- They form part of what Hymes (1972b) has called the speaker's communicative competence.
- Ethnographic investigation suggests the hypothesis that dialects have a social value as a signal of distinctness and speaker's identification with other members of local descent.
- This social significance of the dialect can only be understood by contrast with the meanings which locals assign to the standard.
- The standard is associated with education and power on the national scene and carries connotations of differences in rank which are unacceptable in the realm of informal local relations.
- The fact that all residents frequently switch between the dialect and the standard can only be explained through the analysis of particular speech events.
- The concepts of setting, social situation, and social event represent an attempt to explain the natives' conception of their behavioural environment in terms of an ordered set of constraints which operate to transform alternative lines of behaviour into particular social meanings.
- The analysis presented in this chapter, demonstrate the importance of social or non-referential meaning for the study of language in society.
- In order to interpret what he hears, the investigator must have some background knowledge of the local culture and of the processes which generate social meaning.
- Without this it is impossible to generalize about the social implication of dialect differences.

Lesson-15

- **Code Switching:** A set of maxims referring to the choice of one linguistic variety rather than another relates to the negotiation principle.
- **Referential content**, what the conversation is about, obviously contributes to the social relationships of participants, but with content kept constant, different **relational outcomes** may result. This is because the particular linguistic variety used in an exchange carries social meaning.
- This **markedness model** assumes that all linguistic code choices are indexical of a set of rights and obligations holding between participants in the conversational exchange.
- **Markedness model** means that all speakers have mental representations of a matching between **code choices and rights and obligation** sets.
- That is, they know that for a particular conventionalized exchange, a certain **code choice** will be the unmarked i.e. it will be a realization of an expected **rights and obligations set between participants.**
- They also know that other possible choices are more or less marked because they are **indexical** of other than the expected rights and obligations set.
- While the theory is universal, actual associations are speech community specific with speakers knowing what code choice is unmarked and which others are marked for exchanges conventionalized in the community.
- The rights and obligations balance for a speech event is derived from whatever situational features are salient to the exchange such as status of participants, topic, etc.
- The **salient features** will not be the same across all types of exchanges; they are, however, relatively constant across speech events under a single type of exchange.
- The model calls for a markedness continuum: **speakers** operate with degrees of markedness not categorical distinctions.
- They perceive one or more choices are more **unmarked** than others and among **marked choices** some are more marked than others. Further, the same choice is not necessarily unmarked for all **participants** in the same exchange.
- A **social network** may be seen as a boundless web of ties which reaches out through a whole society, linking people to one another, however **remotely but for practical reasons social** networks are generally 'anchored' to individuals, and interest focuses on relatively 'strong' first-order network ties;
- Those persons with whom ego directly and regularly interacts. This principle of 'anchorage' effectively limits the field of **network studies**, generally to something between 20 and 50 individuals.
- **Close-knit social networks** seem to have a particular capacity to maintain and even enforce local conventions and norms, including linguistic norms.

- Even passive ties which entail an absence of regular contact, but are valued by ego as a source of **influence and moral support** (Examples are physically distant relatives or friends, such ties being particularly important to migrant families) offer sociolinguists to investigate relatively clearly definable communities.
- **Network analysis** offers a basis for understanding the social mechanisms that underlie this process of language maintenance, the converse of language shift.
- **Network analysis** can also illuminate the social dynamics involved in this kind of inter-group difference.

Lesson-16

- Introduction; Grammar of Code Switching; Linguistic Dimension-One System or Two; Linguistic Dimension-Bilingual Mixing; Bilingual Mixing; Linguistic Variation and Age
- Grammar of Code Switching **: Michael Clyne** argues that the grammatical constraints and the **grammatical models** of code-switching cannot be substantiated universally.
- **Michael Clyne** further develops the idea of 'triggering', which he proposed in his earlier work namely, an item of **ambiguous affiliation**—i.e. one **belonging to the speakers'** two systems triggers off a switch from one language to another.
- He points out that trigger words are not part of the switch, but indicative of the psycholinguistic process by which the bilingual speaker plans and produces his or her speech.
- One System or Two? The fact that bilingual children mix elements from their two languages is often interpreted as evidence for a unitary underlying language system.
- **Fred Genesee's** article examines the empirical basis for such a claim.
- **Fred Genesee's** points out the serious methodological problems of some of the studies, and re-analyses selected case studies.
- **Fred Genesee's** also offers new data from speech perception studies, arguing that young bilingual children are able to differentiate two languages from the earliest stages of bilingual development and that they can use their two languages in contextually sensitive ways.
- **Fred Genesee's** points out that code-mixing itself is not good evidence for the unitary system argument. In fact, children's mixing may be related to mixed input by **parents.**
- **Genesee** calls for more serious research on the possible role of parental input in the form of mixed utterances.
- **Jürgen M. Meisel** addresses the 'one system or two' question by focusing on the syntactic and morphological development of bilingual children.
- Instead of simply providing further evidence in support of the separate development argument**, Meisel** raises the theoretically more interesting question of whether the human language making

capacity could allow the bilingual individual to separate the two simultaneously acquired grammatical systems from early on, without going through a phase of confusion.

- Through a **longitudinal study** of simultaneous **French-German** bilingual children, he argues that grammatical processing is in fact possible much earlier than is usually assumed on the basis of analyses of monolingual child language.
- He further *speculates* that this early development of grammatical processing ability could be explained by the fact that the task of acquiring **two language systems** simultaneously requires more attention to problems of form, rather than relying on semantic-pragmatic strategies alone.
- **Types of Mixing:** By far the most frequent type of mixing to be reported involves whole lexical items, both content and function words.
- Some investigators have found that **content words**, and especially nouns, are the most frequently mixed **lexical items**.
- Others have reported specifically that **adverbs, articles, pronouns, prepositions and conjunctions** occurred in mixed utterances in descending order of frequency.
- **Mixing** at the level of the phrase has also been found.
- It is also reported when phrasal mixing occurred, the structural consistency of the utterances was maintained so that there were no **lexical redundancies or syntactic errors**.
- To the extent that this is generally true, it would argue against an **interpretation** of mixing in terms of linguistic confusion.
- There have been reported examples of syntactic mixing, semantic mixing and pragmatic mixing also.
- Nevertheless, it is possible that bilingual children mix because they have heard mixing by their **parents or other speakers** in the environment.
- This makes it necessary to study the language models to which bilingual children are exposed in order to understand all possible sources of mixing.
- Rates of mixing vary from study to study and from case to case.
- Mixed utterances are reportedly more frequent in early stages of **bilingual development** and **diminish** with age.
- Challenges: Reported rates of mixing are difficult to interpret or compare across studies owing to:

    - 1. Differential exposure to the languages in question
    - 2. The possibility of unequal or inequitable sampling of the child's language use in different language contexts and/or with different interlocutors
    - 3. The lack of an acceptable metric of language development with which to identify children at comparable stages

- 4. Different operational definitions of mixing
- 5. Different histories

- **Adult code-switching:** Studies of code-mixing in adults show it to be a sophisticated, rule-governed communicative device used by linguistically competent bilinguals to achieve a variety of communicative goals, such as conveying emphasis, role playing, or establishing socio-cultural identity.
- It has highly structured syntactic and sociolinguistic constraints.
- In particular, mixing of linguistic elements from one language into another is performed so that the syntactic rules of both languages are respected.
- There is evidence to the effect that intra-sentential mixing increases in **adult bilinguals** as their competence in the two languages increases.
- **Adult bilinguals** also switch between languages as a function of certain sociolinguistic factors, such as the setting, tone and purpose of the communication or the ethno-linguistic identity of the interlocutor. This language behaviour is referred to as code-switching (**Sridhar and Sridhar, 1980).**
- What is thought to distinguish bilingual children's mixing from adult mixing is the lack of systematicity or compliance to linguistic rules in the case of children.
- The **period of language** mixing just described is generally reported to be followed by linguistic differentiation. Investigators studying children with different language histories have reported that differentiation occurs during the third year of life.
- At this time, the child is thought to have developed or to be developing two separate representations of his/her language systems or, alternatively, to have overcome the linguistic confusion characteristic of the earlier stage.
- He or she begins to switch systematically between **languages as a function of the participants, the setting, the function of the message (**e.g. to exclude others), its form (e.g. narration), and to a lesser extent, the topic of conversation.
- **Bilingual children** are reported to be especially sensitive to their interlocutors so that initially when differentiation occurs they tend rigidly to use the language they associate with the speaker even though he or she may express a willingness to use the other language.

Lesson-17

- This would mean that 'Words from the two languages did not belong to two different speech systems but to one…' (In Hatch, 1978:27).
- Swain (1977) postulated a 'common storage model' of bilingual development according to which all rules of both languages are initially stored in a common location and subsequently tagged as appropriate for a particular language through a process of differentiation.

- Three stage model Volterra and Taeschner (1978) have interpreted language mixing in terms of a three stage model: 1. Initial unification of both lexical and syntactic subsystems 2.

- Differentiation of the lexicon but continued unification of syntax 3. Finally, differentiation of both the lexicon and syntax.
- The title of Swain's (1972) thesis—Bilingualism as a first language —exemplifies the unitary-system interpretation of early bilingual development.

- In order to uphold the unitary-system hypothesis one would need to establish that, all things being equal, bilingual children use items from both languages indiscriminately in all contexts of communication, which does not quite happen.
- Children from very young age are sensitive to the context, who they are speaking to and choose languages accordingly.
- Evidence of declining rates of overall mixing does not constitute sufficient proof that the child has only one language system.
- Mixing may decline with development, not because separation of the languages is taking place but rather because the children are acquiring more complete linguistic repertoires and, therefore, do not need to borrow from or overextend between languages.
- Some investigators have examined mixing as a function of interlocutor or context, but their analyses are incomplete or questionable.
- In the absence of sound and complete data on language use in different language contexts, an explanation of bilingual mixing in terms of undifferentiated language systems is open to serious question.
- A number of other more specific explanations of bilingual mixing have been suggested.
- By far the most frequent of these is that bilingual children mix because they lack appropriate lexical items in one language but have them in the other language and, effectively, they borrow from one language for use in the other.
- Mixing may also decline as the child 'comes to recognize adult-imposed standards of behavior and shows awareness of his own ability to meet them.'
- If this is indeed the case then differentiation would be more an issue of developing sociolinguistic competence than of underlying psycholinguistic separation of the language systems.
- Mixing has also been reported in cases of overly restricted use of specific lexical items.
- Imedadze (1978) and Swain and Wesche (1975) have suggested that in some cases bilingual children identify a referent with the lexical item in the language that was first or most frequently used to label it.
- They might insist on using that word at all times when talking about that referent regardless of the linguistic context.
- These instances of mixing due to lexical borrowing could be viewed as overextensions of the type observed in monolingual children (Griffiths, 1986) with the difference that bilingual children overextend inter-lingually as well as intralingually while monolingual children overextend intra-lingually only.
- In the -language case of first acquisition, it has been observed that particular overextensions of nominals usually cease once the child has learned what mature speakers of the language would consider a more appropriate word.

- Anglin (1977) has suggested that in fact under-extensions are more frequent than overextensions in monolingual development, but they often go unnoticed because they do not violate adult usage.
- Bilingual children may overextend longer than monolingual children because they hear more instances of particular nominals being used in specific contexts (e.g. the German nominal for 'glasses' being used in German contexts or with German-speaking interlocutors),
- Monolingual children are likely to hear the same nominals used in extended contexts (e.g. glasses used in all contexts in which the referent occurs).
- Universal Principles Slobin (1973) has argued for a set of universal operating principles which every child brings to bear on the problem of language acquisition, and for a number of language-specific strategies which are involved in the acquisition of aspects of a given native language.
- According to Slobin, the order of development of various grammatical devices is determined by the child's cognitive and perceptual development and by characteristics of the languages to be learned.
- Children learning two languages simultaneously may be expected to mix aspects of their languages because of acquisitional strategies that are independent of language representation per se.
- More specifically, language mixing might occur in any given utterance of a bilingual child, even though his/her two languages are represented separately for two possible reasons.
- Mixing might occur because the language system in use at the moment is incomplete and does not include the grammatical device needed to express certain meanings.
- In the other case, the grammatical device required to express the intended meaning is available in the language currently in use, but it is more complex than the corresponding device in the other language system and its use strains the child's current ability.
- Developing bilingual children can be seen to be using whatever grammatical devices they have in their repertoire or whatever devices they are able to use given their current language ability.
- Issues concerning acquisitional strategies in bilingual development are independent of the issue of language representation.
- These particular acquisitional strategies may result in differences in the utterances of bilingual and monolingual children but bilingual development is characterized by the same processes of acquisition as monolingual development.
- Indeed on theoretical grounds, one would expect bilingual and monolingual acquisition during infancy to be the same.
- There has been much speculation about a possible relationship between bilingualism, metalinguistic awareness and the effect this might have on language acquisition.
- While there is some evidence of such relationships, it is inconsistent and pertains to older bilinguals, either school-age children or adults only.

Lesson-18

- In the existing literature, there is very little detailed documentation of how the linguistic background and competence of the researcher affects his or her relationships with the people and their language behavior being studied,
- Although it is generally accepted that if the linguistic competence of the researcher is compatible with that of the people being studied,

- Data collection should be smoother and more successful.
- Native competence certainly helps the research to reveal some of the minute linguistic details, particularly of nonstandard language varieties (e.g. Trudgill, 1974).
- The number of researchers who can claim such competence is relatively small and that the majority of the existing studies of the language behavior of bilingual speakers are carried out by non-native speakers of one of the languages.
- Researchers are lucky enough to obtain sufficient funding to employ a team of temporary assistants to carry out data collection and data analysis.
- Problems of comparability may then arise as different researchers may impart their own perspectives to the phenomenon being investigated into the data collection and analysis.
- While such different perspectives are themselves interesting and provide valuable information worthy of studying, they create difficulties in interpreting the research findings.
- Sometimes even if a researcher with the appropriate linguistic background is located, he or she may not be of the ethnic origin or nationality appropriate or necessary for the study.
- This often happens when the language boundary crosses ethnic or religious boundaries, i.e. the same language is used by members of different ethnic or religious groups.
- The effects of age, gender and educational background of the researcher on the data that he or she collects and ultimately analyses have been discussed extensively by sociolinguists (e.g. Milroy, 1987).
- Psychologists and neuroscientists may see languages as fairly clearly defined, discrete systems, each having its own name tag; in contrast, linguists, especially those with a sociolinguistic inclination, see language boundaries as fuzzy and problematic.
- Even among the broad category of linguists, some maintain a distinction between 'language' and 'speech', whereas others believe such a distinction is unnecessary and fallacious.
- bilingual speakers possess two more or less discrete grammatical systems,
- While others argue that bilinguals have their own coherent system which cannot be judged by any monolingual norm.
- This is not a simple matter of seeing bilingualism as advantageous or disadvantageous to the individuals and the society.
- It is much subtler.
- Depending on their social and professional positions and personal interests, some bilingual researchers may believe that a generally positive portrayal of the speakers' bilingual ability is more desirable, and their investigations are designed in such a way that the results will highlight 'better' skills of bilingual speakers.
- Others may insist that only certain types of bilingualism are acceptable. For instance, some bilingual researchers believe that speakers with high proficiency levels in both of their languages do not engage in code-switching; in other words, code-switching is a sign of linguistic deficiency.
- However, it is quite clear from the vast quantity of published work that, from a socio-political point of view, bilingualism research can never be truly 'value-free'.
- In addition, researchers of different disciplinary backgrounds often have different research agendas, even though they may be working with the same language pairs, the same speakers, or the same data corpus.
- Findings and interpretations are in fact a result of having different terminologies and research agendas.

- Studies of the language development of bilingual children can be based on parental diaries, video recording or audio-recording of children's play and conversation, or standardized tests and checklists.
- Studies of the language attitudes and language ideologies can be based on analyses of written documents or interview data.
- Studies of language processing of bilingual speakers, on the other hand, are normally based on experiments.
- There is no one method that is intrinsically better than others.
- We should be particularly aware of the possibility that style of research (e.g. ethnographic, experimental, survey, systematic observation) and use of tools (such as questionnaires, interviews, tape-recordings, tests, attitude scales) can carry with them a political ideology, a view of the person and a philosophy of knowledge.
- surveys often aim for participative democracy whereas experiments are often about control;
- qualitative ethnographic observation aims for a holistic view of the person while quantitative variationist studies tend to fragment the person into variables;
- Tape-recordings and detailed transcription of them aim for a 'mirror reflection', or a 'positivist' picture, of what actually happens,
- Whereas in-depth interviews and critical analyses of them want to (re)construct particular versions of experience and reality.

Lesson-19

- We immediately think of someone who has a good command of two languages as bilingual; and the use of two languages in education as bilingual education but, as Cazden and Snow (1990) point out, bilingual education is "a simple label for a complex phenomenon."
- Colin Baker (1993: 9), one of the most perceptive scholars in the field of bilingual education, suggests that sometimes the term bilingual education is used to refer to the education of students who are already speakers of two languages, and at other times to the education of those who are studying additional languages.
- Bilingual education is different from traditional language education programs that teach a second or a foreign language.
- For the most part, these traditional second- or foreign-language programs teach the language as a subject, whereas bilingual education programs use the language as a medium of instruction; that is, bilingual education programs teach content through an additional language other than the children's home language.
- More than anything else, bilingual education is a way of providing meaningful and equitable education, as well as an education that builds tolerance towards other linguistic and cultural groups.
- In so doing, bilingual education programs provide a general education, teach in two or more languages, develop multiple understandings about languages and cultures, and foster appreciation for human diversity.
- Traditional second or foreign-language programs often aim to use only the target language in instruction, whereas bilingual education programs always include some form of more than one language in at least someparts of instruction.

- Although the approach may be different, the development of some type of bilingualism is accomplished in both language-teaching programs.
- Language-teaching programs in the twenty-first century increasingly integrate language and content, therefore, coming to resemble bilingual education; and bilingual education programs are paying more attention than ever to explicit language instruction also.
- Although many second-language and foreign-language programs pay lip service to using only the target language in instruction, in reality bilingual ways of using languages are very often present in these programs, in the instructional material used, in the language use of the teacher, and certainly in the language use of the children.
- Moreover, sometimes in bilingual education programs one finds a language ideology that is very similar to that found in language-teaching programs, with teachers attempting to use only the target language in instruction: that is, no translation is provided and the teacher never uses both languages within the same lesson.
- What continues to separate these two kinds of programs has to do with the broader general goal of bilingual education, the use of two languages to educate generally, meaningfully, equitably, and for tolerance andappreciation of diversity, and the narrower goal of second or foreign language teaching to learn an additional language.
- In educating broadly, bilingual education focuses not only on the acquisition of additional languages, but also on helping students to become global and responsible citizens as they learn to function across cultures and worlds, that is, beyond the cultural borders in which traditional schooling often operates.
- Even the widely accepted definition of bilingual education being the use of two languages in education is not straightforward.
- As Baker (2001: 4) points out, “the ownership of two languages is not as simple as having two wheels or two eyes.”
- and being educated bilingually cannot be equated to being given two balanced wheels like those of a bicycle: bilingual education is not simply about one language plus a second language equals two languages.
- The vision of bilingual education as a sum of equals reduces bilingual education to the use of two or more separate languages, usually in different classroom spaces, time frames, contexts, or as spoken by different teachers.
- In this reductive view, bilingual education has been often interpreted as being the simple sum of discrete monolingual language practices.
- Separate and full competencies in each language are expected of students. Furthermore, these “idealized” bilingual education practices take little account of how languages are used in society, or of real bilingual and multilingual practices.
- Monoglossic ideologies of bilingualism and bilingual education treat each of the child’s languages as separate and whole, and view the two languages as bounded autonomous systems.
- We contrast this monoglossic language ideology to one based on Bakhtin’s (1981) use of heteroglossic as multiple voices.
- A heteroglossic ideology of bilingualism considers multiple language practices in interrelationship, and leads to other constructions of bilingual education.

Lesson-20

- In the twenty-first century, our complex multilingual and multimodal global communicative networks often reflect much more than two separate monolingual codes.
- Bilingual education that is adaptive, able to expand and contract, as the communicative situations shift and as the terrain changes, is precisely what all children in the twenty- first century need.
- What is important for bilingual education, then, may not always be the full language parts in isolation, but the quality and the effectiveness of the integrated sum. One plus one does not always equal two.
- The language practices of bilinguals are interrelated and expand in different directions to include the different communicative contexts in which they exist.
- What is needed today are practices firmly rooted in the multilingual and multimodal language and literacy practices of children in schools of the twenty-first century, practices that would be informed by a vision starting from the sum: an integrated plural vision.
- Educating children bilingually enables language practices that, like the banyan trees, build on each other in multiple ways and directions – up, out, down, across – but yet rooted in the terrain and realities from which they emerge.
- Bilingual education, for us, is simply any instance in which children's and teachers' communicative practices in school that maximize learning efficacy and communication; and that, in so doing, foster and develop tolerance towards linguistic differences, as well as appreciation of languages and bilingual proficiency.
- Bilingual education in the twenty-first century must be reimagined and expanded, as it takes its rightful place as a meaningful way to educate all children and language learners in the world today.
- Bilingual education is here used to refer to education using more than one language, and/or language varieties, in whatever combination.
- In today's globalized world, bilingual education is at times criticized, on the one hand, because it is seen as maintaining separate linguistic enclaves, and, on the other, because it does not accommodate the linguistic heterogeneity of the times. For example, in the United States bilingual education is often blamed, first, for the ghettoization of U.S. Latino students in segregated classrooms, and, second, for the lack of attention paid in these programs to ethno-linguistic minorities other than Latinos.
- However, these arrangements have much more to do with residential and social class segregation than with bilingual education per se.
- Although it is important to pay attention to all children with different ethno-linguistic profiles, it is Latino children who are often most in need of bilingual education programs in the U.S., for they constitute the greatest proportion of English-language learners in the country (approximately 75 to 79 percent), and yet receive but scant attention.

- Bilingual education is also often blamed because nations and states seeking legitimacy in the twentieth century have often claimed an immutable relationship between language and identity, using bilingual education as a means to strengthen that link (Heller, 1999).
- In the United States, the growth of immigration and migration, especially of Spanish speakers, has unleashed a reaction against bilingual education.
- The states of California, Arizona, and Massachusetts have declared bilingual education illegal and the term "bilingual education" is often attached only to programs for recently arrived immigrants that are transitional in nature, and not to programs that include speakers of English and where two languages are used throughout the child's education.
- In fact, these two-way bilingual educational programs in the United States are now called, in many instances, dual language education, again silencing the word "bilingual."
- Within the European Union, bilingual education is being promoted under the banner of CLIL/EMILE, acronyms which refer to "Content and Language Integrated.
- The choice of CLIL/EMILE responds to the fact that the term "bilingual education" is politically loaded for certain European countries, even though these are bilingual programs that use more than one language in instruction.
- In Canada, the persistent voices of First Nations peoples, and their efforts to revitalize and maintain their languages, continue to challenge the limitation of bilingual education only to the languages of power: English and French, and the recognition of the multilingualism of many countries in Africa and Asia in particular has also served to question the viability of bilingual education in only two languages in a more complex socio-linguistic order.
- Throughout the world, bilingual education practices are becoming more popular than ever, and we use the term "bilingual education" because it enables us to link to the research, scholarship, policy, and practice of the last fifty years.
- We also use it because bilingual education is centered in schools where curriculum and assessment are mostly linear, inducing educators to think of language acquisition in similar ways.
- Thus, usually children are initially schooled bilingually, that is, in two languages, even when the intent is to develop proficiency in more than two languages, or even when many more than two separate languages are used in instruction.
- Beneficiaries: The overarching principle of this book is that some form of bilingual education is good for all education, and therefore good for all children, as well as good for all adult learners.
- This is a principle that we have always held; one that was well established by Fishman (1976).
- Bilingual education is good for all language majorities, that is, powerful ethno-linguistic groups, as well as language minorities, those without power.
- Bilingual individuals enjoy cognitive and social advantages over monolinguals. As Fishman (1978b: 47) has said: "In a multilingual world it is obviously more efficient and rational to be multilingual than not."
- Bilingual education has the potential of being a transformative school practice, able to educate all children in ways that stimulate and expand their intellect and imagination, as they gain ways of expression and access different ways of being in the world.
- By using a language effectively, one can access information extend social networks and build self-worth.

- Monolingual education has at times been used as a way to limit access and legitimate the linguistic practices of those already in power.
- Bilingual education has the potential to give access to languages of power and bilingual education can also legitimize minoritized language practices. As such, bilingual education can be transformative.
- As Lewis says (1978: 20, our italics): "Bilingual education has been advocated for entirely pedagogical reasons, while the fundamental rationale for the proposal is to bring about greater political, economic, and social equality because all forms of education are concerned with the redistribution of power or the maintenance of its current distribution.